

Regional Political Divisions in Ukraine in 1991–2006*

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Introduction

This article examines determinants of persistent regional political cleavages in post-Communist Ukraine. The question is how significant the role of culture is compared to ethnic, economic, and religious factors in the regional divisions. This study employs correlation, factor, and regression analyses of regional support for the Communist/pro-Russian parties and presidential candidates and pro-nationalist/pro-independence parties and candidates in all national elections held from 1991 to 2006, the vote for the preservation of the Soviet Union in the March 1991 referendum, and the vote for the independence of Ukraine in the December 1991 referendum. This study shows that the pattern of these regional differences remained relatively stable from 1991 to 2006. Historical experience has a major effect on regional electoral behavior in post-Communist Ukraine. The legacy of Austro-Hungarian, Polish, Romanian, and Czechoslovak rule is positively associated with the pro-nationalist and pro-independence vote; the same historical legacy has a negative effect on support for pro-Communist and pro-Russian parties and presidential candidates and on the vote for the preservation of the Soviet Union.

Research Question

Strong regional political cleavages manifested themselves in Ukraine after the collapse of Communism. In elections and referendums held from 1991 to 2006, Western Ukrainian regions have generally voted for pro-nationalist parties and politicians and favored the independence of Ukraine from the Soviet Union. In contrast, many Eastern regions have often backed pro-Communist and pro-Russian parties and politicians and supported the preservation of the Soviet Union.

For instance, official results of the repeat second round of the 2004 presidential elections during the “Orange Revolution” showed that Viktor Yushchenko, a pro-Western candidate supported by nationalist parties, received more than 90% of votes in four Western Ukrainian regions, compared to less than 25% in four Eastern Ukraine regions. Conversely, Viktor Yanukovich, a pro-Russian candidate, received more than 70% of the votes in the four regions in Eastern Ukraine and less than 7% of

the votes in the four Western Ukrainian regions. Similarly, in the 2006 parliamentary elections, two main blocs, which included nationalist parties (the Yushchenko Bloc “Our Ukraine” and the Ukrainian People’s Bloc), received support from more than one third of the voters in four regions in the Western part of Ukraine compared to less than 7% in eight regions of Eastern Ukraine.¹ The combined support for three main pro-Russian and pro-Communist electoral contestants (the Party of Regions, the Communist Party, and the “People’s Opposition” Bloc of Nataliia Vitrenko) exceeded 50% in eight Eastern Ukrainian regions. In contrast, they obtained just 10% or less of the votes in five West Ukrainian regions.²

The names of political parties and political leaders expressing pro-nationalist/pro-independence and pro-Communist/pro-Russian orientations often changed in the various elections held since 1991. For example, as the result of the “Orange Revolution,” Viktor Yushchenko, whose supporters included the main pro-nationalist/pro-independence parties and politicians, became the president of Ukraine. Since the 2004 presidential elections, the Party of the Regions replaced the Communist Party as the leading pro-Russian political party in Ukraine.

The question is whether the pro-nationalist/pro-independence and pro-Communist/pro-Russian voting behavior in regions of Ukraine is stable across the various elections and referendums held in the period 1991–2006 and whether this pattern of regional political orientation can be attributed primarily to the regional political culture or to other factors.

This article quantitatively assesses the role of political culture compared to economic, ethnic, religious, and demographic factors on pro-Russian/pro-Communist orientation and nationalist/pro-independence orientation that manifested themselves in the regional results of all national presidential and parliamentary elections in Ukraine during the period 1991–2006, as well as in two referendums held in 1991. This study uses historical experience as a measure of regional political culture. In contrast to most previous studies, this article uses the pre-1939 Soviet border to define the Western and Eastern regions of Ukraine. The study examines the predictive power of the regional historical experience variable, the Western historical region variable, and the religious variable, as compared to other regional variables that have been suggested by previous studies.

Previous Studies

The majority of previous studies of the voting behaviors and political attitudes of Ukrainians focuses on statistical analyses of determinants of support for individual political parties or presidential candidates in a single election or a survey. A recent, comprehensive review of studies of all parliamentary and presidential elections held in Ukraine from 1994 to 2004 concludes that, although such factors as ideology and

relations with Russia are important determinants of voting choice in many elections, "the voting behavior of Ukrainians fluctuates considerably from one election to the next and exhibits only slight evidence of constancy."³ Other determinants of support for particular political parties and presidential candidates, such as region, often vary in different elections.⁴

Previous studies have identified different factors as responsible for regional political cleavages in Ukraine. Most studies of political regionalism in Ukraine attribute regional cleavages to economic, ethnic, religious, and cultural factors.⁵ Ethnic theories, which link regional cleavages to differences and rivalries between ethnic or linguistic minorities and majorities, focus on the presence of the large number of ethnic Russians and Russian speakers in the Eastern part of Ukraine.⁶ Some studies, which rely on theories of relative deprivation and uneven economic development, link the regional divisions in Ukraine to the differences in levels of regional economic development, urbanization, and industrialization. These studies attribute regional cleavages to higher levels of economic development, urbanization, and industrialization in most regions of Eastern Ukraine relative to Western Ukraine.⁷

A growing number of studies link the regional cleavages in Ukraine to differences in political culture, in particular to distinct historical and religious legacies. Ukraine consists of regions whose historical development and political systems differed significantly before World War II than after. It was only by the end of the war that all of the regions that are now part of independent Ukraine became unified under Soviet rule.⁸

In addition, several Western Ukrainian regions are mostly Greek Catholic, in contrast to the predominantly Orthodox regions of Eastern Ukraine. These religious differences contributed in the past to the evolution of differing political cultures in regions of Ukraine. The divisions among the faithful of different religions, primarily the division between Orthodox Christians and Greek Catholics, are sometimes identified as a separate factor in regional cleavages. Religious conflicts resurfaced after the ban on the Greek Catholic Church was lifted in the Soviet Union in 1989; this was shortly before Ukraine became independent.⁹

Previous studies of regional political divisions in Ukraine typically have analyzed the results of one or two elections or surveys, and the studies disagree in their interpretation of regional differences.¹⁰ These studies employ different classifications of regions in Ukraine. Many scholars divide Ukraine into four geographical regions: West, Center, South, and East. Other scholars divide Ukraine into Western and Eastern parts along the Dnieper (Dnipro) River. Such classifications are based to a significant extent on geographical location, and they are affected by subjective judgment.¹¹ Because electoral attitudes are much more fluid than values, findings of statistically significant effects of regional dummies on support for certain political parties and politicians in certain elections or surveys cannot be generalized with sufficient confidence as measures of regional political cultures.

Political Culture in Regions of Ukraine

The term “regional political culture” refers to values and norms that are shared by many residents of a particular region. Most theories of political culture maintain that political values change slowly over a span of generations. Political culture is not the same as ideology; however, over a long period of time, political values are often expressed, for example, in greater support for liberal, conservative, or nationalist political orientation in one country or region than in another country or a region.¹²

Political culture theories imply a relatively stable pattern of basic political values or general political orientations over a long period of time. In contrast to values, political attitudes, which manifest themselves in a support of a particular political party or a particular political leader in a particular election, are much more volatile. Not all individuals in a particular region share the political culture of that region. People may vote out of self-interest, for economic reasons, because of the charisma of a politician, or because of other factors. The emergence of new issues sometimes leads to an electoral realignment in regional support for certain parties and politicians.¹³

Historical experience or legacy represents a major source of political culture.¹⁴ Shared historical experiences shape the values and norms of individuals in the same direction, while different histories the opposite effect. Socialization within family, school, church, and circles of friends serves as a mechanism to transmit these values and norms from one generation to another. Critical junctures of history, such as the unification or break-up of a country, provide a major impetus for the formation of political culture. A critical juncture represents the point in the evolution of a political culture when the dice become “loaded.”¹⁵ Subsequent historical experience reinforces this bias in patterns of orientations.

Voter alignment and party systems in many advanced Western countries reflect historical cleavage structures. Different historical experiences in the North and the South of Italy account for variations in the institutional performance of regional governments. Because of differences in colonial institutions, the legacy of British rule in the United States and Canada was more favorable, compared with the legacy of Spanish and Portuguese rule in Latin America, to the emergence and evolution of decentralized government in post-colonial times. Historical legacies and religious traditions have led to divergence in the levels of corruption, economic liberalization and economic growth in post-Communist countries.¹⁶

Ukraine includes regions that have belonged to different states for significant historical periods of time. The Ivano-Frankivsk Region, the Lviv Region, and most of the Ternopil Region were part of Galicia province in the Austro-Hungarian Monarchy from 1772 to World War I. These regions then became part of Poland until the Soviet–Nazi pact of 1939. Similarly, the Chernivtsi Region (Bukovyna), with the exception of its eastern portion, was ruled by the Hapsburg Empire from 1774 to World War I, and then by Romania until World War II. Transcarpathia belonged to the Hungarian part of the Austro-Hungarian Empire until World War I

and then to Czechoslovakia until World War II. The Volyn Region and the Rivne Region, both parts of Volhynia province, belonged to Poland in the period between the two World Wars. All these regions, which collectively are often referred to in Ukraine as “Western Ukraine,” were incorporated into the Soviet Union as a result of the Soviet–Nazi pact of 1939 and World War II.

In contrast, regions of historical Eastern Ukraine, that is, all regions located to the East of Western Ukraine, were ruled by the Russian Empire from the end of the eighteenth century and then by the Soviet Union. Interruptions of Russian and Soviet rule in Eastern Ukraine were brief. These interruptions were caused mainly by warfare, such as the several-year-long Nazi occupation during World War II.

The division of Ukraine, first between the Russian Empire and the Austro-Hungarian Empire in the late eighteenth century and then between the Soviet Union and Poland, Romania, and Czechoslovakia in the early twentieth century, were crucial junctures in the emergence and evolution of distinct regional political cultures. These territorial divisions coincided with an important period in the formation of national identity. Before nationalism had begun to spread in the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries, local, religious, and status-based identities were dominant among various strata of the population in Ukraine.¹⁷

Historical conditions were generally more favorable for the spread of nationalism and the development of a national identity in the Austro-Hungarian Monarchy and in interwar Czechoslovakia, Poland, and Romania than in the Ukrainian parts of the Russian Empire and the Soviet Union. A relatively more democratic political system in the Austro-Hungarian Empire, compared to that in the Russian Empire, gave Ukrainian intellectuals more opportunity to spread their ideas and cultivate a national identity. Language, education, and religious policies in Western Ukrainian regions, in particular in the Austro-Hungarian province of Galicia, were also more favorable to the development of Ukrainian national identity.¹⁸ The Ukrainian Greek Catholic Church in Galicia played a significant role in the development of a Ukrainian national identity, in contrast to the Orthodox Church in Ukrainian regions of the Russian Empire.¹⁹

In contrast to the Austro-Hungarian Empire, the Russian government eliminated Ukrainian regional autonomy, prohibited the activity of Ukrainian political organizations and associations, and restricted the use of the Ukrainian language in education and print. The Tsar’s government fostered a Russian imperial identity, and treated Ukrainians as a regional group and the Ukrainian language as a dialect of Russian. Because of differences in political systems, Ukrainians in the regions under Soviet rule had less freedom of political association, electoral politics, and national cultural development than did Ukrainians in regions under Czechoslovak, Polish, and Romanian rule in the interwar period.²⁰

The historical differences between Western and Eastern Ukrainian regions do not imply that all regions in each of these two groups have homogenous political cultures. Differences in the length and type of non-Russian and non-Soviet rule contributed to

the emergence of cultural differences among Galicia, Volhynia, Transcarpathia, and Bukovyna in Western Ukraine. Similarly, certain cultural differences emerged among historically Eastern Ukrainian regions. For example, in contrast to other Eastern Ukrainian regions, Crimea became a part of Ukraine only in 1954, when it was transferred by Nikita Khrushchev from the Russian Federation to Soviet Ukraine. Crimean Tatars, who are concentrated in Crimea, developed a distinctive political culture as result of their historical experiences, which were linked to their traditional adherence to Islam.²¹ As a result of a large concentration of migrants from Western Ukraine, intellectuals, students, and cultural, governmental, and business elites, political culture in Kyiv city differs from that of other regions of Eastern Ukraine.²²

However, until World War II, the historical differences between Western Ukraine and Eastern Ukraine were more significant than differences within those regions. The Communist political system, which already existed in Eastern Ukraine, was established in Western Ukraine after its incorporation in the Soviet Union as a result of the 1939 Soviet–Nazi pact and the Soviet victory in World War II. In spite of Soviet totalitarian policies aimed at significantly reducing or eliminating regional differences, socialization within family units, and to a lesser extent socialization with friends, neighbors, and religious communities, helped to sustain distinct political culture in Western regions. In contrast to other institutions, the family remained outside of direct Soviet control. Generations born before Western Ukraine came under the Soviet rule thus continued to influence the political socialization of generations born in the Soviet times.²³

Data and Methodology

The pro-Communist/pro-Russian vote and the nationalist/pro-independence vote in Ukraine are the dependent variables. Previous studies, Ukrainian and Western media publications, and field research in Ukraine during various periods from 1991 to 2006 are used to identify political parties, electoral blocs, and presidential candidates that most closely match these political orientations. Only parties and presidential candidates that emphasize their pro-Communist/pro-Russian or nationalist/pro-independence orientations are included in the statistical analysis, while parties and leaders mostly associated with other political orientations (e.g. oligarchic and liberal) are excluded.

Data on the pro-Communist/pro-Russian vote and the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote in regions of Ukraine are derived from the results of presidential and parliamentary elections and referendums on the preservation of the Soviet Union and Ukrainian independence that were held between 1991 and 2006 (Table 1). The 1996 World Values Survey (WVS) in Ukraine provides individual

TABLE 1 Electoral behavior indexes in regions of Ukraine, 1991–2006

Region	Nationalist/pro-independence vote index	Communist/pro-Russian vote index
<i>Western Ukraine</i>		
Ternopil	78	6
Ivano-Frankivsk	78	8
Lviv	75	6
Rivne	65	21
Volyn	58	21
Chernivtsi	53	26
Transcarpathia	48	25
<i>Eastern Ukraine</i>		
Kyiv city	46	27
Kyiv Region	46	34
Khmelnysky	44	39
Vinnysia	40	39
Cherkassy	39	41
Zhytomyr	38	42
Sumy	36	46
Poltava	35	47
Kirovohrad	33	47
Chernihiv	33	48
Dnipropetrovsk	28	50
Kherson	28	54
Mykolaiv	28	55
Odesa	26	53
Kharkiv	25	55
Zaporizhzhia	25	58
Donetsk	20	63
Luhansk	18	69
Crimea	17	60

level data.²⁴ The survey data help to ensure that the results of the analysis are not sensitive to the ecological inference problem.

Two separate but related variables for historical experience, namely, the number of years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule and the Western Ukrainian dummy variable, are used to measure historical legacy in regions of Ukraine. These variables are strongly correlated (0.84). The first variable measures the number of years a region was not under the Russian/Soviet control in the period 1793–1944. Since culture evolves slowly, short periods of Russian and Soviet rule, mainly during World War I, its aftermath, and the first years of World War II, are not included in the total.²⁵ In the regions that include areas with different historical experience, this measure is weighted according to the proportion of registered voters living in these areas. The year 1793

is chosen as an approximate point in time by which the present territory of Ukraine has been divided between the Russian Empire, which incorporated by that time all regions of Southern Ukraine, and by the Austro-Hungarian Empire.²⁶ This variable captures variation in the length of historical experience in different regions of Western Ukraine. The Western Ukrainian region dummy is used for both straightforward comparison of West vs. East differences and for comparison of historically Western Ukraine with three separate Eastern Ukrainian regions (Center, South, and East), which have been identified by others in previous research.²⁷ This article also examines whether results of statistical analysis are sensitive to choice of different measures of historical experience and regional political culture in Ukraine.

The Catholic variable in this study measures both the effects of culturally transmitted religious legacies and contemporary religious attitudes on regional cleavages. The other independent variables are derived from aggregate data on ethnic and linguistic composition of the population, and levels of economic development and urbanization in 26 regions of Ukraine, as well as individual level data on ethnicity, language, religion, income, education, class, age, and gender²⁸ (see Table 2).

This article employs correlation analysis, factor analysis, and regression analysis of results of all national elections held in Ukraine from 1991 to 2006 and two referendums concerning the preservation of the Soviet Union and independence of Ukraine in 1991. It uses similar regression analysis of the support for pro-nationalist and pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties in the 1996 World Values Survey in Ukraine. This survey, which was a part of the 1995–1997 wave of similar surveys in many countries of the world, was conducted in Ukraine by the Social Monitoring Center and the National Institute for Strategic Studies in September of 1996. The 1996 World Values Survey included 2,811 respondents in all regions of Ukraine.²⁹

Correlation and Factor Analysis

Pro-nationalist/pro-independence and pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties and presidential candidates are identified based on their ideological orientation at the time of each national election and the 1996 World Values Survey. The same applies to electoral blocs, which include nationalist or pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties as their key members. When more than one political party or candidate represents a pro/nationalist/pro-independence orientation in an election or the World Values Survey, the votes of all these parties or candidates are combined. The same procedure is used for parties and candidates of pro-Communist and pro-Russian orientation, because pro-Communist parties in Ukraine advocate pro-Russian orientation.

Nationalist parties—names of which varied in different elections because of frequent splits, renaming, and changing alliances—include *Rukh*, its two main successors (the People's Movement of Ukraine and the Ukrainian People's Party), and

TABLE 2 Historical, economic, ethnic, and religious variables in regions of Ukraine

Region	Years of non-Russian/ non-Soviet rule ^a	Urban population, % ^b	GDP per capita in 2002, hryvnia ^c	Native Ukrainian speakers, % ^d	Ethnic Ukrainians, % ^d	Catholics, 1994, % ^e
Cherkassy	0	54	2,755	91	92	0
Chernihiv	0	56	2,323	72	93	0
Chernivtsi	114	41	3,103	87	73	4
Crimea	0	69	3,094	11	25	0
Dnipropetrovsk	0	83	5,071	64	76	1
Donetsk	0	90	5,240	27	54	0
Ivano-Frankivsk	151	42	3,213	96	97	52
Kharkiv	0	79	4,075	52	67	0
Kherson	0	61	2,784	70	79	0
Khmelnysky	0	49	2,765	92	92	2
Kirovohrad	0	58	3,019	86	90	0
Kyiv city	0	80	13,713	64	84	3
Kyiv Region	0	79	3,771	90	83	0
Luhansk	0	86	3,374	32	55	1
Lviv	151	59	3,292	92	93	50
Mykolaiv	0	66	3,723	66	79	2
Odesa	9	66	4,393	43	59	1
Poltava	0	58	4,818	88	90	0
Rivne	26	46	2,960	95	95	3
Sumy	0	64	3,381	81	88	0
Ternopil	134	42	2,311	97	98	87
Transcarpathia	151	39	2,559	79	80	17
Vinnytsia	0	45	3,015	92	94	1
Volyn	26	50	2,944	96	96	0
Zaporizhzhia	0	76	4,478	49	67	2
Zhytomyr	0	55	2,555	88	88	0

^aSee Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*.

^bThe average of the 2001 Ukrainian census and the 1989 Soviet census. See Derzhavnyi Komitet Statystyky Ukrainy, "Vseukrainskyi perepys naseleennia 2001," <<http://www.ukrstat.gov.ua/>>, 2004; *Naseleennia Ukrainy: Demohrafichnyi Shchorichnyk* (Kyiv: Tekhnika, 1993).

^cThe regression analysis uses unweighted mean values of the GDP per capita in 2002 and 1995. See Anders Aslund, "The Economic Policy of Ukraine after the Orange Revolution," *Eurasian Geography and Economics*, Vol. 46, No. 5, 2005, p. 333; *National Human Development Report: Ukraine, 1995* (New York: United Nations Development Program, 1996); Statystychnyi Shchorichnyk Ukrainy za 1996 Rik (Kyiv: Ukrainska Entsyklopedia 1997).

^dThe average of the 2001 census and the 1989 census. See Derzhavnyi and *Naseleennia*.

^eJaroslav Martyniuk, "The State of the Orthodox Church in Ukraine," *RFE/RL Research Report*, Vol. 3, No. 7, 1994.

smaller organizations such as the Ukrainian Republican Party, the Congress of Ukrainian Nationalists, and the Ukrainian National Assembly. In the 2002 and 2006 parliamentary elections, the “Our Ukraine” Bloc, which was led by Viktor Yushchenko, included most of the principal nationalist parties and nationalist leaders along with liberal and oligarchic organizations and politicians.³⁰

The same procedure was used to identify presidential candidates who advocated relatively more pro-nationalist ideas and greater independence from Russia compared to their opponents, and who were supported by the main nationalist parties in the second round of the elections. This list includes the following presidential candidates: Viacheslav Chornovil (a *Rukh* leader), Levko Lukianenko (the Ukrainian Republican Party leader), and Ihor Yukhnovsky (a leader of the opposition alliance in the Communist-dominated parliament) in the 1991 elections; Leonid Kravchuk in the second round of the 1994 elections; Leonid Kuchma in the second round of the 1999 presidential elections; and Viktor Yushchenko in the repeat second round of the 2004 presidential elections.³¹

Pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties and presidential candidates refer to the successor parties of the Communist Party of the Soviet Union and parties which favor closer ties with Russia and presidential candidates supported by most of these parties in the final rounds of the presidential elections. Pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties include the Communist Party of Ukraine, the Socialist Party, the Peasant Party, and the Slavic Unity Party in the 1994 parliamentary elections; the Communist Party, the Socialist and Peasant Parties Bloc, and the Progressive Socialist Party in the 1998 parliamentary elections; the Communist Party, the Communist Party of Workers and Peasants, the Communist Party (Renewed), the Progressive Socialist Party, the Socialist Party, and *ZUBR* (For the Union of Ukraine, Belarus, and Russia) in the 2002 elections; and the Party of Regions, the Communist Party, Nataliia Vitrenko’s “People’s Opposition” Bloc, which was based on the Progressive Socialist Party, and several smaller contenders in the 2006 elections. Pro-Communist or pro-Russian presidential candidates include Leonid Kravchuk in the 1991 presidential elections, Leonid Kuchma in the second round of the 1994 elections, Petro Symonenko (the leader of the Communist Party) in the second round of the 1999 presidential elections, and Viktor Yanukovych (the leader of the Party of Regions) in the repeat second round of the 2004 presidential elections.³²

The Socialist Party and the Peasant Party are excluded from the list of the pro-Communist and pro-Russian parties starting from the 2002 parliamentary elections because of changes in their political orientation. For example, the Socialist Party, which supported a Communist Party candidate in the second round of the 1999 presidential elections, supported Viktor Yushchenko rather than a pro-Russian candidate in the second round of the 2004 presidential elections. The Socialist Party was a member of the Orange coalition government at the time of the 2006 parliamentary elections. This party switched sides again and formed a coalition with the Party of Regions and the Communist Party several months after the elections. The inclusion of the

Socialist Party to the list of the pro-Communist and pro-Russian parties in the 2002 parliamentary elections and the 2006 parliamentary elections does not change main results of statistical analyses in this study.

In the 1996 World Values Survey, nationalist parties include of the following: the All Ukrainian Political Alliance “State Independence of Ukraine,” the Congress of Ukrainian Nationalists, the People’s Movement of Ukraine, the Democratic Party, Ukrainian Conservative Republican Party, Ukrainian National Assembly, Ukrainian National Conservative Party, Ukrainian Republican Party, and Ukrainian Peasant’s Democratic Party. The Communist Party of Ukraine, the Socialist Party, the Peasant Party, the Slavic Unity party, and the Civic Congress are identified as pro-Communist and pro-Russian parties in this survey.³³

Correlation and factor analysis of the national election and referendum results from 1991 to 2006 in 26 Ukrainian regions shows a remarkable persistence of the regional cleavages. The combined vote for the nationalist/pro-independence presidential candidates and parties in each presidential and parliamentary election is highly intercorrelated. The correlations range from 0.51 to 0.97. The vote for the Communist and pro-Russian parties and presidential candidates in Ukrainian regions also shows a highly consistent pattern. The correlations range from 0.47 to 0.997. All these correlations are statistically significant; the overwhelming majority is significant at the 0.001 level. In other words, the probability they arose by chance in most cases is equal to or less than 1 in 1000, and in the rest of the cases is equal to or less than 1 in 100 or 1 in 20 (see Tables 3 and 4).

It is noteworthy that regional support for the pro-nationalist/pro-independence parties and presidential candidates and the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties and candidates since the “Orange Revolution” is strongly correlated with regional support for electoral forces of the same political orientation before the “Orange Revolution.” The correlation coefficients for the combined support for the “Our Ukraine” Bloc, the Ukrainian People’s Bloc, and several smaller parties in the 2006 elections range from 0.81 (the vote for Viktor Yushchenko in the repeat second round of the 2004 presidential elections) to 0.97 (the vote for the “Our Ukraine” Bloc in the 2002 parliamentary elections). The regional vote for Viktor Yushchenko in the repeat second round of the 2004 presidential elections has the weakest correlation (0.51) with support for Leonid Kuchma in the second round of the 1999 presidential elections, and the strongest correlation (0.83) with the vote for the “Our Ukraine” Bloc in the 2002 parliamentary elections. The combined vote for the pro-Russian and pro-Communist parties in 2006 has the weakest correlation (0.49) with the regional vote for Leonid Kravchuk in the 1991 presidential elections, and the strongest correlation (0.997) with the vote for Viktor Yanukovych in the repeat second round of the 2004 presidential elections. Regional support for Viktor Yanukovych in the 2004 presidential election correlates most weakly (0.47) with the combined vote for pro-Communist and pro-Russian parties in the 2002 elections (Tables 3 and 4).

TABLE 3 Correlation matrix of the vote for the pro-nationalist/pro-independence parties, presidential candidates, and the independence of Ukraine in national elections and referendums in 26 regions of Ukraine, 1991–2006

	Nationalist parties 2006	Viktor Yushchenko 2004	Nationalist parties 2002	Leonid Kuchma 1999	Nationalist parties 1998	Leonid Kravchuk 1994	Nationalist parties 1994	Nationalist candidates 1991	Independence of Ukraine December 1991
Nationalist parties 2006	1.00								
Viktor Yushchenko 2004	0.81***	1.00							
Nationalist parties 2002	0.97***	0.83***	1.00						
Leonid Kuchma 1999	0.82***	0.51**	0.82***	1.00					
Nationalist parties 1998	0.93***	0.66***	0.93***	0.86***	1.00				
Leonid Kravchuk 1994	0.91***	0.82***	0.92***	0.82***	0.87***	1.00			
Nationalist parties 1994	0.85***	0.64***	0.85***	0.77***	0.92***	0.82***	1.00		
Nationalist candidates 1991	0.91***	0.66***	0.90***	0.88***	0.95***	0.86***	0.86***	1.00	
Independence of Ukraine December 1991	0.52**	0.71***	0.53**	0.33	0.43*	0.65***	0.43*	0.48*	1.00

*** $p \leq 0.001$, ** $p \leq 0.01$, * $p \leq 0.05$.

TABLE 4 Correlation matrix of the vote for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties, presidential candidates, and the preservation of the Soviet Union in national elections and referendums in 26 regions of Ukraine, 1991–2006

	Communist/ pro-Russian parties 2006	Viktor Yanukovich 2004	Communist/ pro-Russian parties 2002	Petro Symonenko 1999	Communist/ pro-Russian parties 1998	Communist/ pro-Russian parties 1994	Leonid Kuchma 1994	Leonid Kravchuk 1991	Preservation of Soviet Union March 1991
Communist/pro-Russian parties 2006	1.00								
Viktor Yanukovich 2004	0.997***	1.00							
Communist/pro-Russian parties 2002	0.93***	0.93***	1.00						
Petro Symonenko 1999	0.53**	0.52**	0.73***	1.00					
Communist/pro-Russian parties 1998	0.50**	0.47*	0.69***	0.95***	1.00				
Communist/pro-Russian parties 1994	0.65***	0.62***	0.74***	0.71***	0.78***	1.00			
Leonid Kuchma 1994	0.84***	0.82***	0.91***	0.81***	0.82***	0.76***	1.00		
Leonid Kravchuk 1991	0.49*	0.48*	0.65***	0.85***	0.83***	0.65***	0.72***	1.00	
Preservation of the Soviet Union March 1991	0.63***	0.63***	0.77***	0.90***	0.88***	0.67***	0.85***	0.94***	1.00

*** $p \leq 0.001$, ** $p \leq 0.01$, * $p \leq 0.05$.

The vote for the preservation of the Soviet Union in the March 1991 referendum is strongly associated with support for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties and candidates. Correlation coefficients range from 0.63 to 0.94, and they all are statistically significant at the 0.001 level. The results of the referendum on the independence of Ukraine in December 1991 are correlated more moderately with the regional vote for the pro-nationalist/pro-independence parties in individual elections. However, all correlation coefficients are in the expected direction. Correlations between the vote for the independence and the nationalist vote range from 0.33 to 0.71. They are statistically significant, with the exception of the lowest correlation coefficient, at least at the 0.05 level³⁴ (see Tables 3 and 4).

Principal factor component analysis of the combined votes for Communist and pro-Russian presidential candidates and parties in each election and the vote for the preservation of the Soviet Union in the March 1991 referendum in 26 Ukrainian regions produces a single factor solution. The same result is obtained from the factor analysis of the nationalist and pro-independence votes.

Two separate indexes, which can range from 0 to 100, were created on the basis of the factor analysis of the election and referendum results in 26 Ukrainian regions from 1991 to 2006 (Table 1). The first index measures regional support for the Communist and pro-Russian parties and candidates and the preservation of the Soviet Union. This index, basically, represents the average of the vote for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties and presidential candidates in all elections from 1991 to 2006 and the vote for the preservation of the Soviet Union in the March 1991 referendum. The second index shows the average of the regional support for the pro-nationalist and pro-independence parties and candidates in all presidential and parliamentary elections from 1991 to 2006 and the vote for the independence of Ukraine in the December 1991 referendum. Both the pro-Communist/pro-Russian vote index and the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote index have very high reliability coefficients (0.95 and 0.96, respectively). The high negative correlation between these scales (-0.89) lends support to the view that a strong cleavage existed between nationalist/pro-independence and Communist/pro-Russian electorates in Ukrainian regions from 1991 to 2006.

Table 1 shows that support for pro-Communist and pro-Russian candidates and parties and for the preservation of the Soviet Union is much higher in most regions of Eastern Ukraine than in the Western regions. Eastern regions score between 27 (Kyiv city) and 69 (the Luhansk Region) on the pro-Communist and pro-Russian vote index, compared to scores ranging from 6 (Lviv and Ternopil Regions) to 26 (the Chernivtsi Region) in Western Ukraine. The pro-nationalist and pro-independence vote index shows a reverse pattern of regional differences. This index ranges from 48 (the Transcarpathia Region) to 78 (the Ivano-Frankivsk and Ternopil Regions) in Western Ukraine, compared with scores ranging from 17 (Crimea) to 46 (Kyiv city and the Kyiv Region) in Eastern Ukraine (Table 1).

Regression Analysis

Multiple regression analysis shows that historical experience has the strongest effect on the regional pro-Communist and pro-Russian vote index from 1991 to 2006. This is the case in all versions of regression models. These regression models differ by type of historical experience variable and by inclusion of either the proportion of the Ukrainian speakers or the proportion of ethnic Ukrainians, because these two variables are extremely highly intercorrelated (0.97) and cannot be included in the same regression for the reason of multicollinearity.

The historical variable, expressed as the number of years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule, has the largest standardized (beta) coefficient, and is statistically significant at $p \leq 0.001$ level at a regression model I, which includes the proportion of Ukrainian speakers, and at $p \leq 0.01$ level at the another version of the same model, which includes the proportion of ethnic Ukrainians. Keeping other variables constant, 10 years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule decrease the pro-Communist/pro-Russian vote index by 1.7%. The use of the Western historical regions dummy variable instead of the years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule shows similar results. The Western historical regions variable is the strongest predictor of the pro-Communist/pro-Russian vote index. This measure of the regional historical experience is statistically significant at the $p \leq 0.001$ level. When other factors, such as the urbanization rate, the proportion of Catholics, the proportion of ethnic Ukrainians, or the proportion of native Ukrainian speakers are kept constant, the average Western region scores about 22% lower than the average historical Eastern region on the pro-Communist/pro-Russian regional vote index (Table 5).

The regression model III, which is based on the four-region measure of political culture suggested by previous studies, produces similar results as do the models based on the years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule and the Western historical dummy variable. The Center, the South, and the East are each much more pro-Communist and pro-Russian in their electoral behavior compared to historical Western Ukraine, which as an omitted variable in the regressions serves as a yardstick for such a comparison. These regional differences are statistically significant at the 0.001 level. The differences between historical Western Ukraine and each of these three regions of historical Eastern Ukraine are larger than differences among the Center, the South, and the East. The inclusion of the Center, the South, and the East into regression models increases the proportion of the variance explained by only several percentage points, i.e. from 92% to 95% in the model that includes the Ukrainian speakers variable, and from 89% to 93% in the model that includes the ethnicity variable (see Table 5).

Regression analysis of the determinants of the pro-nationalist/pro-independence index shows that different measures of historical experience have statistically significant effects in all versions of the regression models. This effect is bigger than the effect of other variables, with one exception. Keeping other variables constant, 10 years of

TABLE 5 Determinants of the pro-Communist/pro-Russian vote index in regions of Ukraine, 1991–2006

	Model I				Model II				Model III			
	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta
Years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule	−0.169***	−0.536	−0.168**	−0.531								
Historical West					−21.970***	−0.561	−21.912***	−0.559				
Center									23.152***	0.648	22.992***	0.644
South									28.001***	0.581	31.244***	0.649
East									36.036***	0.817	40.046***	0.908
Catholic	−0.098	−0.117	−0.098	−0.117	−0.191**	−0.228	−0.191*	−0.228	−0.203***	−0.242	−0.208**	−0.248
Ukrainian language	−0.346***	−0.469			−0.303***	−0.411			−0.225**	−0.305		
Ethnic Ukrainian			−0.371**	−0.359			−0.309**	−0.299			−0.198*	−0.191
GDP per capita	−0.003**	−0.274	−0.003*	−0.246	−0.003***	−0.279	−0.003**	−0.259	−0.002**	−0.195	−0.002	−0.148
Urbanization rate	0.148	0.127	0.266	0.229	0.085	.073	0.201	0.173	−0.164	−0.141	−0.164	−0.142
Constant	72.266***		68.357***		74.894***		69.619***		55.337***		51.833***	
Adjusted R^2	0.86		0.82		0.92		0.89		0.95		0.93	
N	26		26		26		26		26		26	

*** $p \leq 0.001$, ** $p \leq 0.01$, * $p \leq 0.05$.

non-Russian/non-Soviet rule increases the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote index by 1.3–1.4%. Similarly, the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote index in the average Western region is 21–22% lower than in the average historical Eastern region. Differences between Western Ukraine and the Center, South, and the East are statistically significant and are much larger than differences among these three regions of historical Eastern Ukraine. The inclusion of the Center, the South, and the East into regressions only increases the proportion of the variance explained from 94% to 95% in the model that includes the Ukrainian speakers variable, and from 91% to 94% in the model that includes the ethnicity variable (Table 6).

The effect of the Western geographical dummy, which splits Ukraine along the Dnieper River, on the pro-Communist/pro-Russian vote and the nationalist/pro-independence vote is statistically insignificant. The proportion of Catholics in the population has a significant negative effect on the pro-Communist and pro-Russian index in regression models that use regional dummy variables. The Catholic variable is positively associated with the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote index in the same type of regression models. The religion variable is statistically insignificant in the regression model that employs the number of years of non-Soviet/non-Russian rule as a measure of historical experience (Tables 5 and 6).

Ethnicity and language have statistically significant effects on the pro-Communist and pro-Russian vote index in regions of Ukraine, but their effects are smaller than the effects of historical experience. With the exception of the regression model that uses the number of years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule and the proportion of native Ukrainian speakers, the Ukrainian ethnicity and the Ukrainian speakers variables have smaller effects than the historical experience variables have among the determinants of the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote index. The proportion of ethnic Ukrainians and the proportion of native Ukrainian speakers in the regional population are negatively associated with the pro-Communist/pro-Russian vote index, and they are positively associated with the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote index. The regional GDP per capita has a negative effect on the pro-Communist and pro-Russian vote index. In contrast, effect of this measure of economic development on the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote index is not statistically significant, with one exception. The urbanization rate is statistically insignificant in both cases (Tables 5 and 6).

The regression analysis of the 1996 World Values Survey in Ukraine shows that different historical experience variables have the strongest effect on support for the nationalist parties. The years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule and the Western regional dummy have the largest standardized (beta) coefficients in their respective regression models. These variables are statistically significant at $p \leq 0.001$ level. The regression model III shows that the Western Ukrainians are much more supportive of the nationalist parties than the respondents in the Center, the South, and the East of Ukraine. All these variables are statistically significant at $p \leq 0.001$ level. The differences among the respondents from these three regions of historically Eastern Ukraine

TABLE 6 Determinants of the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote index in regions of Ukraine, 1991–2006

	Model I				Model II				Model III			
	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta
Years of non-Russian/ non-Soviet rule	0.134*	0.418	0.137*	0.427								
Historical West					21.424***	0.540	21.556***	0.543				
Center									−22.305***	−0.617	−22.483***	−0.622
South									−25.366***	−0.520	−28.734***	−0.589
East									−31.071***	−0.696	−35.888***	−0.804
Catholic	0.217	0.255	0.206	0.243	0.250***	0.294	0.244***	0.288	0.258***	0.303	0.257***	0.303
Ukrainian language	0.366***	0.489			0.339***	0.453			0.288***	0.386		
Ethnic Ukrainian			0.424**	0.405			0.384***	0.366			0.300**	0.286
GDP per capita	0.002	0.163	0.001	0.124	0.002**	0.168	0.002	0.134	0.001	0.112	0.001	0.049
Urbanization rate	−0.074	−0.063	−0.168	−0.143	0.037	0.031	−0.059	−0.050	0.209	0.178	0.231	0.196
Constant	6.582		6.642				0.705		18.916		18.599	
Adjusted R^2	0.85		0.82		0.94		0.91		0.95		0.94	
N	26		26		26		26		26		26	

*** $p \leq 0.001$, ** $p \leq 0.01$, * $p \leq 0.05$.

are much smaller than their differences from the respondents in the historical West. The comparison of the regression model III and model II, which uses the historical Western Ukraine vs. historical Eastern Ukraine dummy, demonstrates that the inclusion of the Center, the South, and the East into regression does not increase the proportion of the variance explained (13%) (Table 7). The Western geographical dummy, which splits Ukraine along the Dnieper River, has a statistically significant effect on the support of the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties. However, comparison of regression coefficients shows that the effect of this variable is inferior compared to both the years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule and the Western historical dummy.

The average Catholic is much more likely than the average non-Catholic to express a desire to vote for the parties of the nationalist orientation in Ukraine. Standardized (beta) regression coefficients show that the religion variable has the second biggest effect after historical experience on support for the nationalist parties. The Catholic variable is statistically significant at $p \leq 0.001$ (Table 7).

TABLE 7 Determinants of support for the nationalist parties in Ukraine, the 1996 World Values Survey

	Model I		Model II		Model III	
	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta
Years of non-Russian//non-Soviet rule	0.002***	0.183				
Historical West			0.238***	0.205		
Center					-0.220***	-0.216
South					-0.287***	-0.203
East					-0.280***	-0.272
Catholic	0.178***	0.094	0.203***	0.108	0.202***	0.107
Ukrainian speaker	0.075**	0.078	0.055	0.057	0.026	0.027
Ethnic Russian	-0.153***	-0.089	-0.154***	-0.090	-0.144**	-0.084
Other ethnic minority	-0.090**	-0.084	-0.087**	-0.081	-0.085**	-0.079
Class	-0.000	-0.001	-0.004	-0.006	-0.009	-0.014
Education	0.008	0.034	0.008	0.034	0.007	0.029
Income	-0.000	-0.000	0.002	0.010	0.003	0.013
Age	-0.001	-0.048	-0.001	-0.040	-0.001	-0.038
Male	-0.054*	-0.056	-0.052*	-0.054	-0.051*	-0.052
Constant	0.351***		0.337***		0.616***	
Adjusted R^2	0.12		0.13		0.13	
N	1,600		1,600		1,600	

*** $p \leq 0.001$, ** $p \leq 0.01$, * $p \leq 0.05$.

Regression analysis of the 1996 World Values Survey shows that ethnic Russians and the other ethnic minorities are much less supportive of the nationalist parties than the ethnic Ukrainians are. The effects of the ethnic variables are statistically significant. The differences between Ukrainian speakers and the other respondents are statistically significant only in regression model I, which uses the number of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule as a measure of historical experience. Men are less likely than women to support the nationalist parties. The effects of the other socioeconomic factors (e.g. income, education, class, and age) on the support of the nationalist parties are not statistically significant (Table 7).

The regression analysis of the 1996 World Values Survey in Ukraine reveals that historical experience, which is measured by the number of years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule and by the Western regions dummy, has a strongly negative effect on the desire to vote for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties. All versions of the historical experience variable are statistically significant at $p \leq 0.001$. However, standardized coefficients show that the effect of historical experience is of smaller magnitude than the effect of age. Differences between the respondents from Western Ukraine and the respondents from the Center, South, and the East are statistically significant at the 0.001 level, and they are much larger than differences among the three regions of historical Eastern Ukraine. The inclusion of these three regions into the regression model does not increase the proportion of the variance explained (14%) (Table 8). The effect of the Western geographical dummy on the support of the nationalist parties is statistically significant (at $p \leq 0.01$), but its magnitude and the level of statistical significance are much lower compared to both the years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule and the Western historical dummy.

The average Catholic respondent in the 1996 World Values Survey is much less likely to vote for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties than the average non-Catholic. The effect of the religion variable is statistically significant. Not surprisingly, ethnic Russians are significantly more supportive of the pro-Communist and pro-Russian parties than the other respondents are. However, the differences between Ukrainian speakers and non-Ukrainian speakers are not statistically significant, with the exception of regression model III. When region (i.e. the Center, the South, and the East) and other factors, such as ethnicity, are held constant, Ukrainian speakers express a stronger desire to vote for the pro-Communist and pro-Russian parties than the other respondents do (Table 8).

Age is the strongest determinant of support for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties in the 1996 World Values Survey. A 10-year increase in respondent's age increases support for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties by 5–6%. Education is negatively associated with the desire to vote for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties. The effects of both age and education are statistically significant at $p \leq 0.001$. Men are more likely than women to support the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties. Class differences have no statistically significant effect on the support of the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties (see Table 8).

TABLE 8 Determinants of support for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties in Ukraine, the 1996 World Values Survey^a

	Model I		Model II		Model III	
	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta	Coefficient	Beta
Years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule	-0.001***	-0.152				
Historical West			-0.190***	-0.170		
Center					0.155***	0.158
South					0.251***	0.184
East					0.281***	0.284
Catholic	-0.108*	-0.060	-0.128**	-0.071	-0.126**	-0.069
Ukrainian speaker	0.005	0.010	0.006	0.023	0.076*	0.082
Ethnic Russian	0.158***	0.096	0.159***	0.096	0.148***	0.090
Other ethnic minority	0.052	0.050	0.049	0.048	0.048	0.047
Class	-0.010	-0.018	-0.008	-0.013	0.002	0.003
Education	-0.027***	-0.116	-0.027***	-0.116	-0.024***	-0.103
Income	-0.008	-0.041	-0.010	-0.050	-0.011*	-0.058
Age	0.006***	0.193	0.005***	0.186	0.005***	0.181
Male	0.052*	0.056	0.050*	0.054	0.048*	0.051
Constant	0.246***		0.258***		-0.016	
Adjusted R^2	0.13		0.14		0.14	
N	1,600		1,600		1,600	

*** $p \leq 0.001$, ** $p \leq 0.01$, * $p \leq 0.05$.

^aThe survey question is as follows: "If there were a national election tomorrow, for which party on this list would you vote?"

Conclusion

Post-Communist Ukraine has experienced significant regional cleavages since 1991. Statistical analysis of the regional voting results in all national parliamentary and presidential elections and two key referendums from 1991 to 2006 shows a stability of pro-nationalist/pro-independence orientation and pro-Communist/pro-Russian orientation in regions of Ukraine in spite of changes in dominant political parties and political leaders. Regional support for nationalist/pro-independence and pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties and presidential candidates since the "Orange Revolution" is strongly correlated with regional support for parties and candidates of the similar political orientation before the "Orange Revolution."

The vote for the preservation of the Soviet Union in the March 1991 referendum is strongly and positively related to the vote for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties

and candidates in regions of Ukraine. The regional vote for the independence of Ukraine in December 1991 is associated positively but less strongly with the vote for the pro-nationalist/pro-independence parties and presidential candidates in the national elections from 1991 to 2006.

The regional historical legacy, which is measured by both the number of years of non-Russian/non-Soviet rule and the Western regions dummy, has the strongest effect on the pro-Communist/pro-Russian vote index and the pro-nationalist/pro-independence vote index from 1991 to 2006. The historical experience is the strongest determinants of support for the nationalist parties in the 1996 World Values Survey in Ukraine. Historical legacy is the second biggest factor, after age, in the support for the pro-Communist/pro-Russian parties in this survey.

Keeping other factors such as ethnicity, language, and the level of economic development constant, the historical legacy of Austro-Hungarian, Czechoslovak, Polish, and Romanian rule is positively associated with the nationalist and pro-independence voting choices in post-Communist Ukraine. Conversely, the legacy of non-Russian and non-Soviet rule is negatively associated with the pro-Communist and pro-Russian voting behavior in post-Communist Ukraine. These regression results are not sensitive to the use of different measures of historical experience, use of either ethnicity or language variable, or inclusion of three separate regions of historical Eastern Ukraine into regression models. Regression analysis shows that the differences between Western Ukraine and the Center, South, and the East are much larger than differences among these three regions of historical Eastern Ukraine.

The Catholic variable, which measures both the culturally-based religious legacy and modern-day, religious-based divisions, has a mixed effect. The proportion of Catholics in the population is negatively associated with the pro-Communist/pro-Russian index and positively associated with the pro-nationalist/pro-independence index in some regression models. The Catholic respondents in the 1996 World Values Survey in Ukraine are much more likely than the non-Catholics to support the parties of the nationalist orientation and less likely to support the parties of the pro-Communist/pro-Russian orientation.

Other factors, such as ethnicity, language, per-capita GDP, class, income, education, and gender, affect the voting behavior and preferences in Ukraine to a lesser extent than historical experience does. Increased age is positively associated with support for the pro-Communist and pro-Russian parties in Ukraine. However, the effect of age on support for the nationalist parties is not statistically significant.

This study concludes that the regional political cleavages in post-Communist Ukraine primarily reflect cultural differences that emerged as result of distinct historical experiences in regions of Ukraine before World War II. The regional divisions, which persist even after the emergence of new influential political parties and leaders as a result of the "Orange Revolution," are unlikely to disappear in Ukraine in the immediate future. These findings imply that the regional divisions, which are

primarily cultural, continue to present a major challenge to the political development of independent Ukraine.

NOTES

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1. Although the Yulia Tymoshenko Bloc included some former leaders of nationalist parties, these parties were not members of this bloc.
 2. Central Electoral Commission of Ukraine, <<http://www.cvk.gov.ua>>, 2004, 2006.
 3. Bohdan Harasymiw, "Elections in Post-Communist Ukraine, 1994–2004: An Overview," *Canadian Slavonic Papers*, Vol. 47, Nos 3–4, 2005, p 224.
 4. *Ibid.*, pp. 191–239.
 5. See Lowell Barrington, "The Geographic Component of Mass Attitudes in Ukraine," *Post-Soviet Geography*, Vol. 38, No. 10, 1997, pp. 601–614; Sarah Birch, *Elections and Democratization in Ukraine* (New York: St. Martin Press, 2000); Sarah Birch, "Interpreting the Regional Effect in Ukrainian Politics," *Europe-Asia Studies*, Vol. 52, No. 6, 2000, pp. 1017–1042; Ralph Clem and Peter Craumer, "Shades of Orange: The Electoral Geography of Ukraine's 2004 Presidential Elections," *Eurasian Geography and Economics*, Vol. 46, No. 5, 2005, pp. 364–385; Peter Craumer and James Clem, "Ukraine's Emerging Electoral Geography: A Regional Analysis of the 1998 Parliamentary Elections," *Post-Soviet Geography and Economics*, Vol. 40, No. 1, 1999, pp. 1–26; Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; Valeri Khmelko and Andrew Wilson, "Regionalism and Ethnic and Linguistic Cleavages in Ukraine," in Taras Kuzio, ed., *Contemporary Ukraine: Dynamics of Post-Soviet Transformation* (Armonk: M.E. Sharpe, 1998), pp. 60–80; Paul Kubicek, "Regional Polarization in Ukraine: Public Opinion, Voting and Legislative Behaviour," *Europe-Asia Studies*, Vol. 52, No. 2, 2000, pp. 273–294; Vicki Hesli, "Public Support for the Devolution of Power in Ukraine: Regional Patterns," *Europe-Asia Studies*, Vol. 47, No. 1, 1995, pp. 91–121; Oksana Malanchuk, "Social Identification Versus Regionalism in Contemporary Ukraine," *Nationalities Papers*, Vol. 33, No. 3, 2005, pp. 345–368; William Miller, Stephen White and Paul Heywood, *Values and Political Change in Post-Communist Europe* (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1998); Arthur Miller, Thomas Klobucar and William Reisinger, "Establishing Representation: Mass and Elite Political Attitudes in Ukraine," in Sharon Wolchik and Volodymyr Zviglyanich, eds, *Ukraine: The Search for a National Identity* (Lanham: Rowman and Littlefield, 2000), pp. 213–235; Stephen Shulman, "Asymmetrical International Integration and Ukrainian National Disunity," *Political Geography*, Vol. 18, No. 8, 1999, pp. 913–939.
 6. Dominique Arel, "Ukraine: The Temptation of the Nationalizing State," in Vladimir Tismaneanu, ed., *Political Culture and Civil Society in Russia and the New States of Eurasia* (Armonk: M.E. Sharpe, 1995), pp. 157–188.

7. Craumer and Clem, "Ukraine's Emerging Electoral Geography"; Hesli, "Public Support for the Devolution of Power in Ukraine."
8. See Birch, *Elections*; Birch, "Interpreting the Regional Effect in Ukrainian Politics," in Samuel Huntington, *The Clash of Civilizations and the Remaking of World Order* (New York: Touchstone, 1996), pp. 138, 165; Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; Steven Roper and Florin Fesnic, "Historical Legacies and Their Impact on Post-Communist Voting Behaviour," *Europe-Asia Studies*, Vol. 55, 2003, pp. 119–131.
9. See Huntington, *The Clash of Civilizations and the Remaking of World Order*; Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*.
10. Ukrainian- and Russian-language studies of regional cleavages in post-Soviet Ukraine are mostly descriptive in nature. See, for example, *Politychna kul'tura: Teoria, problemy, perspektyvy* (Kyiv: Parapan, 2004); Anatolii Romaniuk and Natalia Chernysh, "Shid-Zahid: Kompromis chy konfrontatsia," *Filosofs'ka i sotsiologichna dumka*, Vols 3–4, 1995, pp. 104–116. Ukrainian- and Russian-language studies often reflect political value judgments concerning the regional divisions. For example, publications by pro-nationalist scholars refer to Eastern Ukraine as an "ugly" and heavily criminalized region. See, for example, Mykola Riabchuk, *Dvi Ukrainy: Realni mezhi, virtual'ni viiny* (Kyiv: Krytyka, 2003). Similarly, publications by pro-Russian and pro-Communist scholars in Ukraine and Russia often brand Western Ukrainians as *banderivtsi*, or followers of the radical and militant nationalist organization active during World War II.
11. See Lowell Barrington and Erick Herron, "One Ukraine or Many?: Regionalism in Ukraine and its Political Consequences," *Nationalities Papers*, Vol. 32, No. 1, 2004, pp. 53–86.
12. Gabriel Almond and Sidney Verba, *The Civic Culture: Political Attitudes and Democracy in Five Nations* (Boston: Little, Brown, 1965); Larry Diamond, "Causes and Effects," in Larry Diamond, ed., *Political Culture and Democracy in Developing Countries* (Boulder, CO: Rienner, 1993), pp. 229–249; Daniel Elazar, *American Federalism: A View from the States* (New York: Crowell, 1966); Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; Seymour Martin Lipset, *Continental Divide: The Values and Institutions of the United States and Canada* (New York: Routledge, 1990); Robert Putnam, Robert Leonardi and Raffaella Y. Nanetti, *Making Democracy Work: Civic Traditions in Modern Italy* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1993).
13. Findings of such culturally-based stable patterns of regional political behavior provide evidence against rational choice theories, which maintain that it is self-interest and not values that motivates people to vote for political parties and candidates. See Donald Green and Ian Shapiro, *Pathologies of Rational Choice Theory: A Critique of Applications in Political Science* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1994). Similarly, such culturally-based stable voting patterns challenge theories of irrational voters, which, for example, attribute the narrow victory of George Bush, the Republican Party candidate in the 2000 US presidential elections, to several million voters who voted against Al Gore, the incumbent Democratic Party candidate, because they blamed the United States vice president for drought in their states. See Christopher Achen and Larry Bartels, "Blind Retrospection: Electoral Responses to Drought, Flu, and Shark Attacks," paper presented at the Annual Meeting of the American Political Science Association, Boston, 29 August–1 September 2002.
14. Diamond, *Political Culture*; Elazar, *American Federalism*; Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; Lipset, *Continental Divide*; Putnam *et al.*, *Making Democracy Work*.
15. Max Weber, "Critical Studies in the Logic of the Cultural Sciences," in Edward A. Shils and Henry A. Finch, eds, *The Methodology of the Social Sciences* (Glencoe: Free Press, 1949), pp. 181–183.

16. See Ivan Katchanovski, "Divergence in Growth in Post-Communist Countries," *Journal of Public Policy*, Vol. 20, No. 1, 2000, pp. 55–81; Seymour Martin Lipset and Stein Rokkan, "Cleavage Structures, Party Systems, and Voter Alignments," in Seymour Martin Lipset and Stein Rokkan, eds, *Party Systems and Voter Alignments: Cross-national Perspectives* (New York: Free Press, 1967), pp. 1–64; Douglas North, *Institutions, Institutional Change and Economic Performance* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1990); Putnam *et al.*, *Making Democracy Work*.
17. Ernest Gellner, *Nationalism* (New York: New York University Press, 1997); Robert Kaiser, *The Geography of Nationalism in Russia and the USSR* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1995); Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; Orest Subtelny, *Ukraine: A History* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 1988).
18. See Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; Subtelny, *Ukraine*.
19. See Ilya Prizel, *National Identity and Foreign Policy: Nationalism and Leadership in Poland, Russia and Ukraine* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1998); Subtelny, *Ukraine*; Orest Subtelny, "Russocentrism, Regionalism, and the Political Culture of Ukraine," in Vladimir Tismaneanu, ed., *Political Culture and Civil Society in Russia and the New States of Eurasia* (Armonk: M.E. Sharpe, 1995), pp. 189–207.
20. See Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; Subtelny, *Ukraine*.
21. Ivan Katchanovski, "Small Nations but Great Differences: Political Orientations and Cultures of the Crimean Tatars and the Gagauz," *Europe-Asia Studies*, Vol. 57, No. 6, 2005, pp. 877–894.
22. Similarly, historical experience in many regions in the geographic Center, South, and East of Ukraine differed before their incorporation by the Russian Empire. There were also differences in settlement patterns in these regions during Russian and Soviet rule.
23. See Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*.
24. Ronald Inglehart *et al.*, World Values Surveys and European Values Surveys, 1981–1984, 1990–1993, and 1995–1997 [computer file] (Ann Arbor: Institute for Social Research, 2000).
25. The inclusion of short periods of Russian and Soviet rule and non-Russian or non-Soviet rule does not significantly change regression results.
26. Regression results are not sensitive to choice of different base year for historical experience in regions of Ukraine.
27. See Barrington and Herron, "One Ukraine or Many?"
28. Because its population is much smaller than that of other regions of Ukraine, this study includes data for Sevastopol city, which has a special regional status, in data for Crimea.
29. See Inglehart *et al.*, World Values Surveys and European Values Survey. A similar World Values Survey was conducted in Ukraine in December 1999, but this survey is not as suitable as the 1995 survey for regression analysis, because the 1999 survey did not include questions on ethnicity and language of the respondents.
30. In 2006, in contrast to the 2002 elections, the Ukrainian People's Party was not part of the "Our Ukraine" Bloc, but led the Ukrainian People's Bloc.
31. See Craumer and Clem, "Ukraine's Emerging Electoral Geography"; Central Electoral Commission of Ukraine, <<http://www.cvk.ukrpack.net>>, 2000, 2002; Central Electoral Commission of Ukraine, 2004; Katchanovski, *Cleft Countries*; Taras Kuzio and Andrew Wilson, *Ukraine: Perestroika to Independence* (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1994).
32. *Ibid.* and Andrew Wilson, "Ukrainian Left: In Transition to Social Democracy or Still in Thrall to the USSR?" *Europe-Asia Studies*, Vol. 49, No. 7, 1997, pp. 1293–1316. In contrast to the 1994 presidential elections, Leonid Kravchuk, who was the Soviet Communist

- Party ideology chief in Soviet Ukraine, during the 1991 elections advocated a relatively more pro-Russian political program compared to his nationalist opponents.
33. The regional vote for the Civic Congress candidates in the 1994 parliamentary elections is not available. However, candidates from this party received only 0.4% of the national vote in the first round of the 1994 elections, and they won only two out of the 450 electoral districts in the second round.
 34. The weakest correlation (0.33) between the vote for the independence of Ukraine and the vote for Leonid Kuchma in the 1999 presidential elections is statistically significant at the 0.1 level.